Two-dimensional powder diffraction in layered van der Waals films: quantitative X-ray area-detector modeling

1 Introduction

For layered thin films, the central structural question is often not only which phase is present, but how the crystallites are oriented relative to the substrate. In layered van der Waals solids and related two-dimensional materials, this orientational state can directly control the properties that motivate the films in the first place.[1–3] In layered halides such as PbI_2, transport and device response can depend strongly on whether the layers lie parallel to the substrate.[4] In topological bismuth chalcogenides, strong c-axis alignment is needed to preserve the desired electronic response.[5] In transition-metal dichalcogenides, catalytic activity can increase when platelet edges are exposed by the film orientation.[6] Comparable orientational states also occur across a wider set of layered thin-film families, including telluride chalcogenides (e.g., Bi_2Te_3, Sb_2Te_3), dichalcogenides (e.g., MoS_2, NbS_2), layered halides and oxyhalides (e.g., BiI_3, BiOI), and laminated 2D-flake films such as $Ti_3C_2T_x$ MXenes and graphene-oxide papers.[7–14]

Wide-angle x-ray scattering (WAXS) with an area detector is attractive for this problem because a single exposure probes a large reciprocal-space volume rich with information of both structure and orientation.[15–19] The difficulty is that many layered films do not fall cleanly into either of the standard diffraction limits. They are neither single crystals, where reciprocal space consists of discrete points, nor fully isotropic three-dimensional (3D) powders, where orientational averaging produces spherical shells.[20] Instead, a common thin-film orientational state is the two-dimensional (2D) oriented powder, in which plate-like crystallites share an aligned layer normal while remaining azimuthally randomized in-plane.[3, 20, 21] This intermediate orientational state produces detector patterns that inherit features of both limiting cases while necessitating nontraditional analysis techniques.[20]

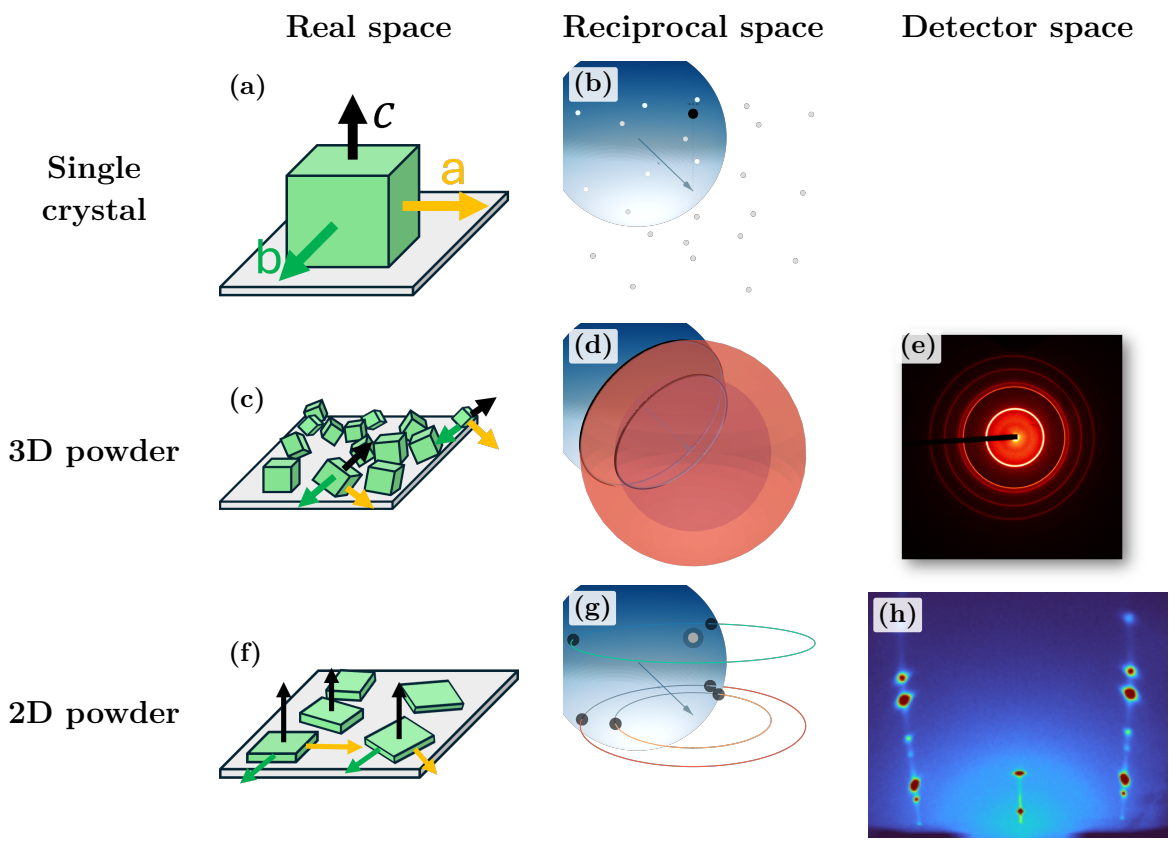

Figure 1: Diffraction across three orientational limits: single crystal, 3D powder, and 2D powder. Columns show the corresponding real-space, reciprocal-space, and detector-space views, while rows group the orientational limits. Panels (a,b) show a single crystal in real space and reciprocal space. Panels (c–e) show a 3D powder, with randomly oriented crystallites, spherical reciprocal-space shells, and Debye–Scherrer rings on the detector. Panels (f–h) show a 2D powder, with aligned surface normals and in-plane orientational disorder, reciprocal-space rings with specular Bragg features, and the corresponding detector pattern with symmetry about the central axis.

Figure 1 summarizes the real-space, reciprocal-space, and detector-space consequences of these three orientational limits. In the Ewald construction, elastic scattering requires that reciprocal-space intensity lie on the Ewald sphere of radius $|\mathbf{k}|$.[22] For a single crystal, reciprocal space consists of isolated Bragg points (Fig. 1b), so at fixed incidence angle the Ewald sphere typically intersects only a small subset of reflections and the detector records sparse spots.[22] For a 3D powder, random crystallite orientations smear the intensity of each Bragg point over a spherical shell, and the Ewald-sphere intersection produces Debye–Scherrer rings on the detector (Fig. 1d, Fig. 1e).[22] For a 2D powder, azimuthal disorder about the common c axis smears each off-specular Bragg point into an in-plane ring about Q_z, while specular $(00L)$ reflections remain localized near the Q_z axis (Fig. 1g).[15, 20] The corresponding illustration in Fig. 1f schematically shows 2D platelets with aligned growth, and a representative 2D-powder detector pattern is shown in Fig. 1h. When the Ewald sphere intersects this reciprocal-space distribution, the detector records hybrid signatures: pairs of symmetric spots from the off-specular ring intersections and single-crystal-like features near

the specular stripe from $(00L)$ intensity.[15, 17, 23] Mosaicity then redistributes intensity, broadening the ring intersections into arcs and spreading the $(00L)$ features into cap-like intensity near the specular region.[15, 20]

This hybrid detector-space information is what makes the 2D-powder problem both rich and difficult. Many standard WAXS workflows reduce area-detector images to 1D profiles by azimuthal integration, often with masking near the direct beam and specular region.[17, 19, 24–26] Those steps suit nearly isotropic powders, but for 2D powders they deweight or remove off-specular arcs and specular caps that constrain out-of-plane correlations, stacking, and mosaic tails.[15, 17] Stacking disorder is also commonly inferred from 1D interference models and refinements,[27–29] which do not directly exploit the two-dimensional anisotropy of oriented-film scattering. More general intermediate orientation distributions can be treated with orientation-distribution-function (ODF) refinements or preferred-orientation corrections,[30–35] but those approaches are more general than needed for the narrowly constrained 2D-powder case considered here.[34, 35] Recent radial-profile approaches have made thin-film GIXD substantially more quantitative, but peak overlap and background separation can remain limiting in strongly anisotropic patterns, especially at small incidence angles.[36] For the layered films considered here, the measured morphology already motivates axial symmetry about the film normal and a low-dimensional out-of-plane mosaicity kernel.[3, 20, 21] We therefore assume this physically motivated 2D-powder orientation distribution a priori and refine it with a detector-space forward model, using off-specular arcs and specular-family line shapes as direct constraints.[15, 17]

Here we present a detector-space forward model for 2D-powder WAXS. Starting from an indexed crystallographic model, it predicts area-detector images and applies the same projection and integration procedures to measured and calculated intensity. The comparison uses detector-space peak positions, local line shapes, relative Bragg intensities, and projected Q_z profiles. Prior work has established the main ingredients needed for such a framework, including grazing-incidence scattering formalisms,[37, 38] reciprocal-space mapping and indexing for oriented thin films,[15, 17, 19, 23] and forward calculations of diffraction from textured films.[39] Complementary atomistic tools have also been developed for constructing commensurate multilayer 2D heterostructure supercells and visualizing reciprocal-space diffraction signatures, including Nookiin.[40] In contrast, the present work carries the calculation in detector space through detector geometry, grazing-incidence propagation, beam phase space, mosaicity, resolution, and ordered structure-factor weighting. The main-text validation is centered on the ordered 2D-powder limit using Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3 films.[5, 7] Diffuse PbI_2 and stacking-disorder refinements are treated as later extensions of the same framework rather than as the primary proof of the method.

2 Diffraction Model

The detector-space forward model redistributes the structure-factor intensity of the contributing reflections over mosaic distributions. We Monte Carlo sample the incident beam profile across those orientations, weights each ray by transmission, and maps the summed intensity to detector pixels. The calculated and measured images are then compared using the same peak positions, line shapes, relative Bragg intensities, and projected L-integrated profiles.

2.1 Diffraction Geometry

We first consider a single incident ray striking a perfectly aligned crystallite, with no beam divergence, no refraction, and no absorption. Elastic scattering requires

$$|\mathbf{k}_i| = |\mathbf{k}_f| = \frac{2\pi}{\lambda}, \qquad \mathbf{Q} = \mathbf{k}_f - \mathbf{k}_i.$$

Diffraction occurs when the momentum transfer matches a reciprocal-lattice vector, $\mathbf{Q} = \mathbf{G}$. In the Ewald construction, this means that the reciprocal-space point for that reflection lies on the Ewald sphere of radius $|\mathbf{k}_i|$, and the simplest diffracted ray is obtained from

$$\mathbf{k}_f = \mathbf{k}_i + \mathbf{G}.$$

For a fixed $|\mathbf{G}|$, the set of possible reflection orientations forms a Bragg sphere of radius $|\mathbf{G}|$ about the reciprocal-space origin. The allowed exit vectors are found by intersecting that Bragg sphere with the Ewald sphere and then propagating the resulting exit ray to the detector.

For each trial incident ray, the model computes the sample intersection, applies the incidence geometry and optical corrections, finds the reciprocal-space intersections that satisfy elastic scattering, and propagates the resulting exit rays to the detector. Rays are Monte Carlo sampled from the probability distribution formed by the shape, bandwidth, and divergence of the beam. From every Bragg peak's structure factor spread upon the mosaic, a second Monte Carlo sampling occurs for each ray to choose an intersection point. Footprint, detector tilt, refraction, and absorption enter as experimental resolution and intensity terms. The coordinate conventions for the lab frame, detector plane, sample rotation, and illuminated footprint are summarized in Figs. 2 and 3.

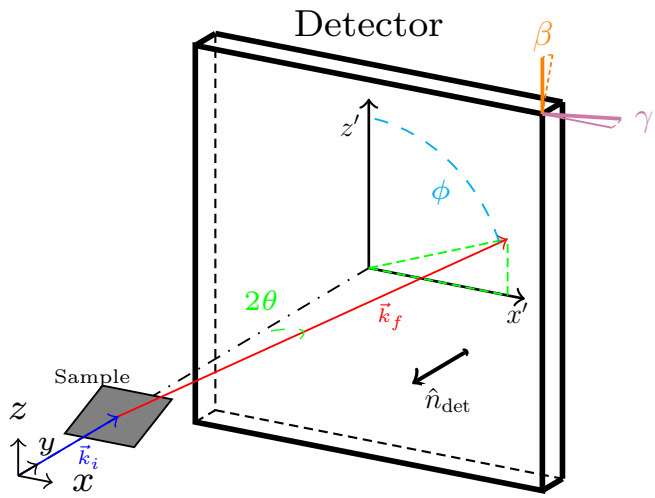

Figure 2: Overall lab-frame geometry. The incident wavevector $\mathbf{k}_i$ strikes the sample, and a representative exit wavevector $\mathbf{k}_f$ reaches the detector at scattering angle 2θ and detector-plane azimuth ϕ. The detector at distance D is tilted by β and γ.

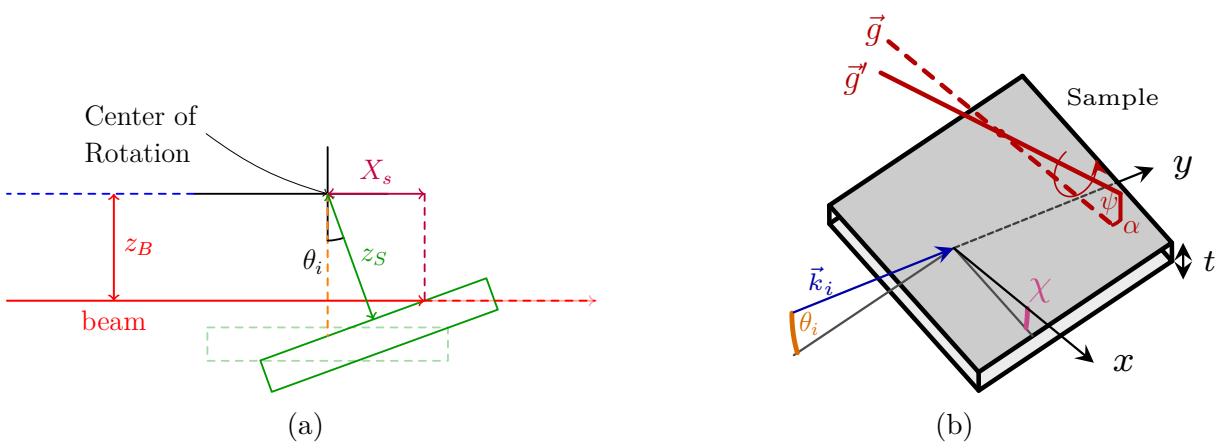

Figure 3: Two-stage sample geometry. Left: rotation about the goniometer center with sample offset z_S and beam offset z_B. θ_i is the incidence angle. Right: full alignment adds tilt δ and footprint length X_s within an illuminated window (W, H) on a film of thickness t. $\vec{g}$ is the goniometer arm (normal to $\hat{y}$), and $\vec{g}'$ is the misaligned arm obtained by rotations α and ψ.

2.2 Structure Factor

We enumerate integer in-plane Miller pairs (H, K), construct the reciprocal-space rod along G_z for each pair, and evaluate its detector intersections. For labels and profile extraction,

the in-plane pair is represented by the scalar family index m, defined by the in-plane sum

$$m(H,K) = \begin{bmatrix} H & K \end{bmatrix} \mathbf{M}_{\parallel} \begin{bmatrix} H \\ K \end{bmatrix}.$$

Here $\mathbf{M}_{\parallel}$ is the in-plane reciprocal-lattice metric, with any lattice-dependent normalization absorbed into the definition of m. For the hexagonal bismuth chalcogenides, this scalar is proportional to $H^2 + H\,K + K^2$. Thus, m labels an in-plane reciprocal-space rod family. In 2D-powder calculations, all integer (H,K) rods with the same m, and therefore the same Q_r, are evaluated individually and then summed after projection. Multiplicity and orientation effects therefore emerge within the forward model.

For each reflection with reciprocal-lattice vector

$$\mathbf{G} = h\mathbf{a}^* + k\mathbf{b}^* + l\mathbf{c}^*,$$

we compute the structure factor as

$$F_{\mathbf{G}} = \sum_a o_a\, f_a(Q)\, \exp[2\pi i\, \mathbf{G}\cdot\mathbf{r}_a]\, \exp\Big[-2\pi^2\, \mathbf{G}\cdot\mathbf{U}_a\cdot\mathbf{G}\Big], \tag{1}$$

where the sum runs over atoms a in the unit cell. Here o_a, $f_a(Q)$, $\mathbf{r}_a$, and $\mathbf{U}_a$ are the occupancy, atomic form factor, fractional position, and anisotropic displacement tensor for atom a. Symmetry constraints are retained during refinement, so only the independent crystallographic parameters are varied. The detector weight for each allowed ray is multiplied by $|F_{\mathbf{G}}|^2$ before mosaic and experimental broadening are applied.

2.3 Mosaicity

Mosaicity is the out-of-plane orientational spread of the layered crystallites about the mean film normal. It is distinct from the random in-plane rotation that defines the 2D-powder limit. Random in-plane rotation generates the equivalent m-indexed ring or rod family, while mosaicity determines how much of that reciprocal-space manifold is brought into the Ewald condition for a fixed incident angle.

We will see that the ordered-film images will require a two-component angular density,

$$\omega_{\mathrm{w}}(\Delta\theta;\eta,\Gamma,\sigma) = \eta L_{\mathrm{w}}(\Delta\theta;\Gamma) + (1-\eta)G_{\mathrm{w}}(\Delta\theta;\sigma), \qquad 0 \le \eta \le 1. \tag{2}$$

Here G_{w} is the Gaussian core, L_{w} is the Lorentzian tail, η is the Lorentzian weight, and $\Delta\theta$ is the crystallite tilt relative to the mean layer normal. The two widths are independent: the Lorentzian full width at half maximum is 2Γ, while the Gaussian full width at half maximum is $2\sqrt{2\ln 2}\,\sigma$. The wrapped form conserves probability over one angular period and avoids an artificial discontinuity at $\Delta\theta = \pm\pi$.

Figure 4 summarizes how the same mosaic distribution appears in reciprocal space and

on the detector. For $G_r \neq 0$, the redistributed intensity appears as off-specular band while for $G_r = 0$ it appears as cap-like.

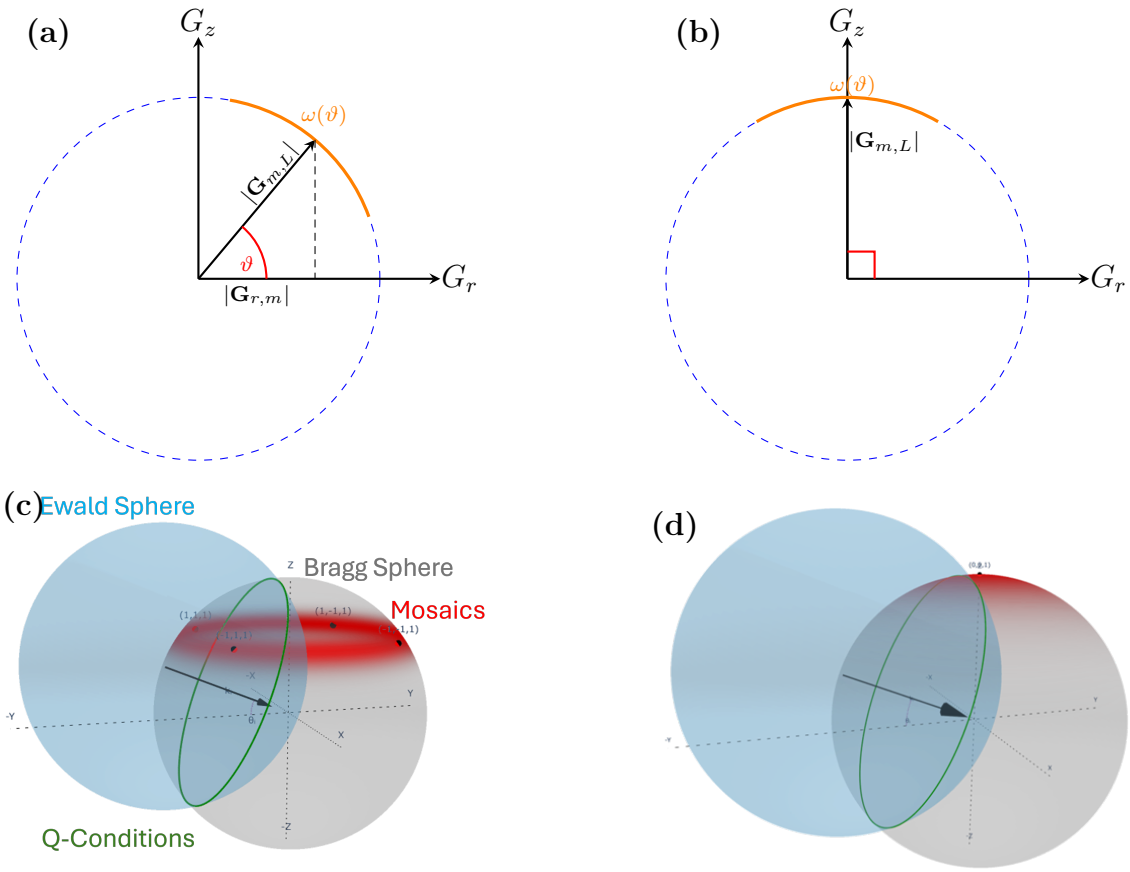

Figure 4: Mosaic broadening in reciprocal space and detector space. (a,c) For $G_r \neq 0$, random in-plane rotation and finite out-of-plane mosaicity give off-specular arcs. (b,d) For $G_r = 0$, the same orientational distribution gives cap-like $00L$ intensity near the specular direction. The narrow Gaussian-like core controls the main width of near-condition features, while the Lorentzian-like tail supplies the weak tilted-crystallite population needed for off-condition $m = 0$ peaks.

3 Refinement workflow

We use a staged refinement because geometry, mosaicity, and crystallographic intensity are strongly correlated in a fully global fit. Each stage uses the detector-space observable most sensitive to one parameter group before the next group is introduced. Table 1 summarizes the ordered-film workflow used for Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3.

The instrumental and alignment stages fix where an ideal reflection should appear on the detector. Direct-beam and calibrant data define the beam phase space and detector mapping, while indexed sample reflections determine the incidence condition, sample offsets, and goniometer misalignment.

Table 1: Staged refinement workflow used for the ordered Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3 films. All sample images are dark-subtracted before the listed observables are formed. Diffuse-scattering and stacking-disorder refinements are deferred from the present main-text draft.

Step	Stage	Data	Parameters refined	Primary information
1	Beam characterization	Direct-beam images at several detector distances	Beam widths w_x, w_z and divergences $\Delta\theta_x$, $\Delta\theta_z$	Incident phase space
2	Detector geometry calibration	Powder calibrant image	Detector distance D, detector tilts (β, γ), and beam center (x_0, y_0)	Detector mapping
3	Sample alignment and goniometer misalignment	Indexed reflection centers from sample images	Sample geometry $(\theta_i, \delta, z_B, z_S)$, in-plane rotation χ, goniometer misalignment (α, ψ)	Detector-space peak positions
4	Mosaicity/profile refinement	Selected local detector ROIs, specular-tail checks, and local profile shapes	Gaussian-plus-Lorentzian mosaic parameters	Center-aligned profile shapes, off-specular arcs, and specular tails
5	Ordered-film validation	Selected detector-space Bragg regions and Q_z projections from fixed-m trajectories	Image scale factors and ordered structure-factor parameters	Relative Bragg intensities and measured/calculated line-shape agreement

The remaining stages refine peak shape and intensity. Local detector profiles constrain the shared Gaussian-plus-Lorentzian mosaic distribution. Selected Bragg-region integrals constrain ordered structure-factor parameters, and the final validation projects measured and calculated images along the same fixed-m trajectories for comparison versus Q_z. Implementation details required for efficiency, including 2θ–ϕ remapping, caked fields, lookup tables, and Monte Carlo sampling, are described in the supporting information. Later stacking disorder can be added by fitting the m-indexed rods as a function of L.

4 Results: ordered Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3 films

Ordered Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3 films validate the model by showing that the same detector-space forward model quantitatively reproduces their measured line shapes and intensities. In the fitting process, three detector images with incident angles of 5°, 10°, and 15° were used. Together, they test the 2D-powder orientational limit, with sample geometry, beam phase space, mosaicity, detector resolution, and ordered structure-factor weighting. Both materials exhibit the expected 2D-powder signatures: off-specular Bragg arcs from in-plane m families and specular-family intensity from $m = 0$ reflections. Here m is the scalar in-plane family label defined in Sec. 2.2.

For each material, the comparison is shown in two complementary views. The detector-space panel identifies the fixed-m Bragg-rod trajectories used for projection while keeping the measured area-detector intensity visible. The profile panel compares measured and calculated intensity plotted on the same axes as a function of L for the selected m families. Those rods are generated and projected separately before their detector-space contributions are summed. The plus and minus branches, where shown in profile panels, refer only to the two detector-side intersections of the same in-plane rod family and are not separate

crystallographic families.

The ordered-film comparison also shows why the Lorentzian mosaic tail is needed. The clearest evidence is the $m = 0$ specular family, i.e. the $00L$ peaks. For a perfectly aligned crystallite at the nominal incidence angle θ_i, only the specular condition directly selected by that incidence geometry should carry appreciable intensity. The measured detector images and projected profiles instead contain additional $m = 0$ peaks whose Bragg conditions are not directly excited by θ_i. A narrow Gaussian-like mosaic core reproduces the strong near-condition arc widths, but it decays too rapidly to supply enough diffracting volume for these off-condition specular peaks.

The 003 condition, or $m = 0$, $L = 3$, is the most visible example (Fig. 5). The measured image shows a star-like feature and bright intensity above the critical-angle region. We do not assign this intensity to reflectivity or to substrate effects. In the forward model, finite incident bandwidth gives the Ewald sphere an effective thickness, and the Lorentzian tail supplies crystallites tilted far enough from the mean orientation to bring the 003 Bragg sphere into the accepted scattering condition.

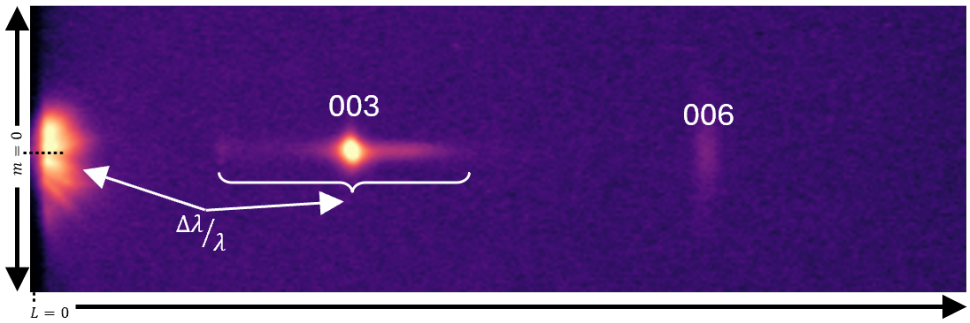

Figure 5: The specular region carries unique signatures of 2D powders. A single incident angle of 5 degrees chosen to excite the 003 peak also shows a peak at 006. The high intensity just above the critical-angle is not assigned to reflectivity. Both of these are explained by a combination of a finite incident bandwidth giving the Ewald sphere an effective thickness, which intersects the small-radius 003 Bragg sphere and a long mosaic tail, that overlap redistributes intensity.

The ordered-film validation below then tests whether the same phase-space treatment reproduces the full set of off-specular and specular line shapes, not only this isolated 003 feature.

Figure 6 gathers the ordered-film validation into a single matched comparison. Panels (a) and (b) are the detector-space views for Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3, respectively. These panels identify the fixed-m trajectories used for projection and show both off-specular and $m = 0$ features in the measured images. Panels (c) and (d) show the corresponding projected Q_z profiles for Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3. In each profile panel, the measured and calculated intensities have been subjected to the same projection and integration procedure.

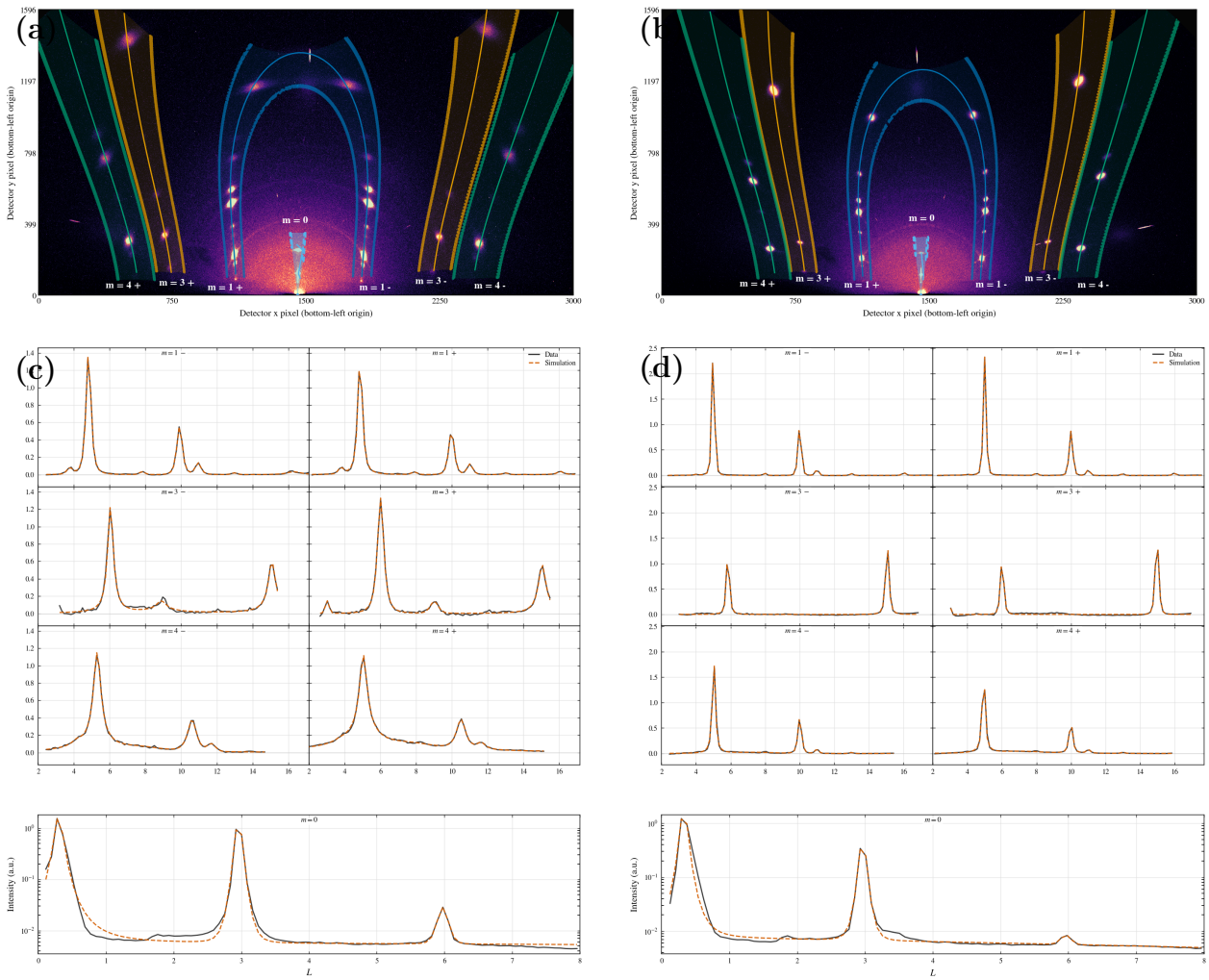

Figure 6: Model and data comparison for Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3. (a,b) Detector-space views show the selected m trajectories. (c,d) The corresponding Q_z profiles compare measured and calculated intensities using the same projection and integration procedure. The $m = 0$ rows probe off-condition $00L$ intensity associated with the Lorentzian mosaic tail.

Because mosaicity, beam divergence, wavelength spread, incidence-angle uncertainty, detector-pixel size, and finite integration width all broaden the effective scattering condition, the projected coordinate should not be interpreted as an ideal reciprocal-space cut from a single perfect crystallite. The detector-pixel contribution to the transformed-coordinate uncertainty is discussed in Sec. **??**: the radial angular term remains bounded, while the azimuthal term becomes important mainly near the low-2θ specular limit. The ordered-film profiles are therefore interpreted through the projection itself, not through an assumption that each plotted point is an exact point in reciprocal space. The comparison remains meaningful because the calculated image is subjected to the same projection, binning, and resolution effects before it is compared with the measured profile.

In Fig. 6, the off-specular m and $m = 0$ profiles play complementary roles. The off-specular arcs check the 2D-powder reciprocal-space construction and calibrated detector

geometry, while their widths and asymmetries constrain the Gaussian-like mosaic core and instrumental resolution. The off-condition $m = 0$ peaks test the Lorentzian tail and show why a rapidly decaying mosaic core alone is insufficient. The bandwidth-sensitive 003 morphology isolated in Fig. 5 reinforces that the forward model must include finite wavelength bandwidth explicitly.

5 Discussion and conclusion

The ordered Bi_2Se_3 and Bi_2Te_3 films validate the mosaic model and detector-space forward model. A single calculation accounts for detector geometry, finite beam phase space, sample alignment, mosaicity, resolution, and ordered structure-factor weighting, then compares measured and calculated Q_z profiles along the same fixed-m trajectories. The key result is direct line-shape agreement.

Keeping the comparison in detector space is essential because the constraining intensity is distributed among off-specular arcs, cap-like $m = 0$ features, and weak off-condition specular peaks that a conventional 1D reduction would obscure. Because the calculated image includes the same effects and is projected in the same way as the measurement, the overlay tests the complete experimental model. The off-condition $m = 0$ peaks also show why a narrow Gaussian-like mosaic core is insufficient and why the Lorentzian tail is required.

The projected profiles should therefore be read as detector-derived, resolution-limited observables rather than exact cuts through an ideal reciprocal-space volume. The detector-pixel contribution to the transformed-coordinate uncertainty and the propagated intensity uncertainty are included to define this limitation, while the final comparison remains a like-for-like test because data and calculation pass through the same projection. A complete covariance or posterior analysis of every fitted structure parameter is not claimed here; the present claim is that the detector-space model reproduces the measured ordered-film line shapes closely enough to support the proposed refinement workflow.

References

[1] K. S. Novoselov, A. K. Geim, *et al.*, Science **306**, 666 (2004).

[2] A. K. Geim and I. V. Grigorieva, Nature **499**, 419 (2013).

[3] S. Fischer *et al.*, Advanced Materials Interfaces **10**, 2202259 (2023).

[4] C. J. Arendse, R. Burns, D. Beckwitt, D. Babaian, S. C. Klue, D. Stalla, E. Karapetrova, P. F. Miceli, and S. Guha, ACS Applied Materials & Interfaces **15**, 59055 (2023).

[5] S.-K. Jerng, K. Joo, Y. Kim, S.-M. Yoon, J. H. Lee, M. Kim, J. S. Kim, E. Yoon, S.-H. Chun, and Y. S. Kim, Nanoscale **5**, 10618 (2013).

[6] Y. Li, H. Wang, L. Xie, Y. Liang, G. Hong, and H. Dai, Journal of the American Chemical Society **133**, 7296 (2011).

[7] H. Zhang, J. Momand, J. Levinsky, Q. Guo, X. Zhu, G. H. ten Brink, G. R. Blake, G. Palasantzas, and B. J. Kooi, Nano Research **15**, 2382 (2022).

[8] H. Zhang, M. Ahmadi, W. W. Ginanjar, G. R. Blake, and B. J. Kooi, ACS Applied Materials & Interfaces **15**, 22672 (2023).

[9] A. Shaji, K. Vegso, M. Sojkova, M. Hulman, P. Nadazdy, P. Hutar, L. Pribusova Slusna, J. Hrda, M. Bodik, M. Hodas, S. Bernstorff, M. Jergel, E. Majkova, F. Schreiber, and P. Siffalovic, The Journal of Physical Chemistry C **125**, 9461 (2021).

[10] Y.-P. Chang, A. L. Hector, W. Levason, and G. Reid, Dalton Transactions **46**, 9824 (2017).

[11] B. W. Williamson, F. T. Eickemeyer, and H. W. Hillhouse, ACS Omega **3**, 12713 (2018).

[12] R. A. Jagt, T. N. Huq, K. M. Börsig, D. Sauven, L. C. Lee, J. L. MacManus-Driscoll, and R. L. Z. Hoye, Journal of Materials Chemistry C **8**, 10791 (2020).

[13] V. Natu, M. Clites, E. Pomerantseva, and M. W. Barsoum, Materials Research Letters **6**, 230 (2018).

[14] R. Sanchez Salas, A. Morelos Gomez, D. A. Sanchez Hernandez, and S. Loera Serna, Journal of Applied Crystallography **58**, 2105 (2025).

[15] D. Smilgies and D. R. Blasini, Journal of Applied Crystallography **40**, 716 (2007).

[16] D. Smilgies, Journal of Applied Crystallography **42**, 1030 (2009).

[17] A. Hexemer and P. Müller-Buschbaum, IUCrJ **2**, 106 (2015).

[18] D. Smilgies, Crystals **15**, 63 (2025).

[19] V. Savikhin, H.-G. Steinrück, R.-Z. Liang, B. A. Collins, S. D. Oosterhout, P. M. Beaujuge, and M. F. Toney, Journal of Applied Crystallography **53**, 1108 (2020).

[20] V. M. Kaganer, G. Brezesinski, H. Möhwald, P. B. Howes, and K. Kjaer, Physical Review E **59**, 2141 (1999).

[21] D.-M. Smilgies, N. Boudet, B. Struth, Y. Yamada, and H. Yanagi, Journal of Crystal Growth **220**, 88 (2000).

[22] J. Als-Nielsen and D. McMorrow, *Elements of Modern X-ray Physics* (Wiley, 2001).

[23] D. Smilgies and D. R. Blasini, Journal of Synchrotron Radiation **12**, 807 (2005).

[24] G. Ashiotis, A. Deschildre, Z. Nawaz, J. P. Wright, D. Karkoulis, F. Picca, and J. Kieffer, Journal of Applied Crystallography **48**, 510 (2015).

[25] J. Strzalka, IUCrJ **5**, 661 (2018).

[26] M. A. Reus, L. K. Reb, D. P. Kosbahn, S. V. Roth, and P. Müller-Buschbaum, Journal of Applied Crystallography **57**, 509 (2024).

[27] S. Hendricks and E. Teller, The Journal of Chemical Physics **10**, 147 (1942).

[28] M. M. J. Treacy, J. M. Newsam, and M. W. Deem, Proceedings of the Royal Society A **433**, 499 (1991).

[29] M. Casas-Cabanas, M. Reynaud, M. Courty, *et al.*, Journal of Applied Crystallography **49**, 2256 (2016).

[30] A. March, Zeitschrift für Kristallographie **81**, 285 (1932).

[31] W. A. Dollase, Journal of Applied Crystallography **19**, 267 (1986).

[32] S. Matthies and G. W. Vinel, physica status solidi (b) **112**, K111 (1982).

[33] K. Pawlik, physica status solidi (b) **134**, 477 (1986).

[34] R. B. Von Dreele, Journal of Applied Crystallography **30**, 517 (1997).

[35] L. Lutterotti, R. Vasin, and H.-R. Wenk, Powder Diffraction **29**, 76 (2014).

[36] F. Gasser, S. John, J. Smets, J. Simbrunner, M. Fratschko, V. Rubio-Giménez, R. Ameloot, H.-G. Steinrücke, and R. Resel, Journal of Applied Crystallography **58**, 1288 (2025).

[37] S. K. Sinha, E. B. Sirota, S. Garoff, and H. B. Stanley, Physical Review B **38**, 2297 (1988).

[38] G. Renaud, R. Lazzari, and F. Leroy, Surface Science Reports **64**, 255 (2009).

[39] D. W. Breiby, O. Bunk, J. W. Andreasen, H. T. Lemke, and M. M. Nielsen, Journal of Applied Crystallography **41**, 262 (2008).

[40] O. Aguilar-Spíndola and F. Sánchez-Ochoa, Computer Physics Communications **321**, 110011 (2026).